

Adjectival adverbs in predicative function in East Caucasian

This paper investigates the adjective–adverb boundary in East Caucasian, with a focus on Tsugni Dargwa. The study draws on a fieldwork-based corpus supplemented by elicitation and uses comparative evidence from at least one language in each branch of the family. It shows that manner expressions are predominantly built from adjectival stems and that East Caucasian languages vary between unmarked and morphologically marked adjective-to-adverb transposition. The main result is that morphologically adverbialized manner forms can occur as copular predicates and contrast systematically with adjectival predicates in interpretation: adjectival forms tend to express individual-level properties, whereas adverbial forms favor stage-level, situation-bound states.

Keywords: East Caucasian; Tsugni Dargwa; manner adverbs; adverbial class boundaries; individual-level vs. stage-level predicates.

1. Introduction

Cross-linguistically, adjectival material is widely used to describe *how* an action is executed – in other words, to express its *manner*. Semantically manner itself can refer not exclusively to the action but also to the agent performing it (Duplâtre & Duffley 2026). In such uses, adjectives are typically analyzed as *adjectival manner adverbs*, forming a large subclass within the heterogeneous set of elements used for manner expression and commonly identified as *manner adverbs*¹.

The present paper focuses specifically on adjectives relating to actions and expressing manner, and on the morphological marking associated with adjectives in this function. In well-known European languages, adjectives are productively employed in adverbial function (i.e., modifying non-nominal heads, primarily verbal predicates, though not exclusively), a use often referred to as adjectival manner adverbs. Many of these languages possess specialized morphology used when adjectives serve in manner expression, such as English *-ly* or Romance *-mente*. At the same time, some adjectival stems occur adverbially without overt marking (e.g., *fast*, *hard*).

The high productivity of adjective-based manner expressions raises an important theoretical question: do such forms constitute an independent lexical subclass of adjectival manner adverbs within the broader class of manner expressions, or should they instead be analyzed as adjectives used in non-canonical syntactic functions? Specialized morphological marking may reflect the functional deployment of adjectival material rather than a categorical shift. From this perspective, adverbial suffixes function as inflectional markers of non-attributive use rather than as derivational devices that create new categories (Haspelmath 2012; Hummel 2017).

The East Caucasian (EC) languages provide a particularly revealing testing ground for these issues. First, in these languages adjectives are frequently and productively used in contexts that modify the *manner* of actions. Across the family, we observe substantial cross-linguistic variation in adjectival–adverbial transposition. In some languages, adjectival stems are used for manner expression without overt marking, exhibiting unmarked transposition, that is, no formal difference between attributive use and adverbial. In other languages, however,

¹ This study does not address the definitional challenges of concept of *manner* nor the varying strategies employed to express it, as these issues have been extensively discussed in recent work (Duplâtre & Duffley 2026).

morphological marking is obligatory when adjectives are used to express *manner*. The degree of formal differentiation correlates with varying degrees of syntactic and semantic overlap between adjectival and adverbial strategies. In many cases, adjectival adverbs retain adjective-like properties, including degree modification, which further blurs categorical boundaries.

Second, EC languages display a typologically unusual pattern whereby adjectival stems in adverbialized manner form are used not only as action manner modifiers but also as copula complements attributing qualities/properties to nominal referents ('X is Y'). This contrasts sharply with European languages restrictions, where adjectival material with adverbial marking is typically incompatible with such contexts, being reserved for adjectives and so-called predicative adjectives.

- (1) a. *Les enfants sont joyeux.*
'The children are happy.'
b. *Les enfants jouent joyeusement.*
'The children play happily.'
c. **Les enfants sont joyeusement.*
Intended: 'The children are happy.'

These patterns suggest that in such languages manner-adverbial morphology is specialized for event modification and blocks predicative use, preventing these forms from attributing qualities to nominal referents.

In EC languages, by sharp contrast with better-known languages showing such restrictions, morphology traditionally analyzed as adverbial does not block the use of adjectival material in predicative contexts, but rather coexists with noun-modifying (aka attributive), strictly adjectival morphology yielding systematic form–interpretation alternations associated with the individual-level vs. stage-level predicate distinction (Milsark 1974; Carlson 1977). Adjectival forms typically encode stable individual properties (ILPs), whereas adverbial forms encode, but temporary, situational states (SLPs) rather than *manner* in the canonical sense.

This study further explores the relationship between manner adverbs and secondary predicates, examining the possibility that elements traditionally classified in EC as *manner adjectival adverbs* may instead be analyzed as participant-oriented state expressions (depictives) that can also function as event-oriented manner modifiers in appropriate contexts.

The paper is structured as follows. Section 2 introduces the classification and typological profile of the EC languages, with particular attention to case systems and gender agreement. Section 3 surveys the adverbial domain, highlighting semantic divisions and category overlaps. Section 4 examines adjectival–adverbial transposition and manner constructions. Section 5 addresses the core phenomenon—manner adverbs in predicative position—with a semantic analysis based on the distinction between individual-level predicates (ILPs) and stage-level predicates (SLPs). Section 6 summarizes the findings and discusses their theoretical implications.

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2. East Caucasian background

2.1. Genetic classification and geographic distribution

The EC language family, also known as Nakh-Daghestanian, comprises approximately thirty to forty languages spoken primarily in the eastern Caucasus. Administratively, these languages are found mainly within the Russian Federation (notably in the republics of Dagestan, Chechnya and Ingushetia), as well as in adjacent regions of Azerbaijan and Georgia. The total number of speakers is estimated at up to approximately four million people.

For the purposes of this study, a six-branch classification is adopted, following Alekseev (2001). Several branches display extreme internal diversity, often forming dense dialect continua with limited mutual intelligibility between neighbouring varieties. This situation is particularly pronounced in the Dargic branch, where individual village lects may exhibit substantial grammatical differences despite close genetic relatedness.

Table 1. Classification of EC languages (Alekseev 2001)

branch	group	languages
NAKH	-	Bats, Chechen, Ingush
	AVAR	Avar
AVARO-ANDO-TSEZIC	ANDIC	Akhvakh, Andi, Bagvalal, Botlikh, Chamalal, Godoberi, Karata, Tindi
	TSEZIC	Bezhta, Hunzib, Hinuq, Khwarshi, Tsez
DARGWA	NORTHERN	Tsudaqar, Usisha-Butri, Gapshima, Muira, Mehweb, Qadar
	SOUTH-WESTERN	Tsugni , Tanti, Sanzhi, Itsari, Sanakari-Chakhrizhi, Amuzgi-Shiri, Kubachi, Ashti, Chirag, Kaytag, Shari
LAK	-	Lak
LEZGIC	Aghul, Archi, Budukh, Kryz, Lezgian, Rutul, Tabasaran, Tsakhur, Udi	
KHINALUG	-	Khinalug

Historically, the family is considered indigenous to the Caucasus region. Archaeological and comparative evidence suggests deep historical continuity, with estimates of the family's age ranging between 6,000 and 8,000 years (Nichols 2003; Koryakov & Verhees 2021). From a comparative perspective, EC languages represent a long-established and internally diverse linguistic lineage.

2.2. Empirical basis of the study

The empirical basis of the present study includes data from at least one language from each major branch of the EC family. Particular emphasis is placed on Tsugni Dargwa, which serves as the primary reference language throughout the paper.

Tsugni is spoken in the village of Tsugni (Republic of Dagestan, Russia) and belongs to the southwestern subgroup of the Dargic branch. The Tsugni data are drawn from the author's fieldwork-based corpus, supplemented by targeted elicitation and introspective judgments, as the author is a native speaker of the language.

2.3. Typological profile relevant to the study

EC languages are typologically characterized by rich inflectional morphology and high structural complexity in both the nominal domain (with ergative alignment) and the verbal domain.

A well-known feature of the family is the presence of extensive case systems, particularly in the spatial domain. Many languages combine multiple semantic dimensions—such as spatial relation, orientation, and direction—within a single inflectional paradigm, resulting in large and semantically fine-grained case inventories.

Another salient feature of EC languages is the presence of grammatical gender (noun classes). Noun categorization synchronically operates primarily on the opposition between animate and non-animate, more specifically human vs. non-human. Within the human domain, nouns are subdivided according to biological sex into male human and female human classes, encompassing all nouns denoting human beings across life stages. The non-human (neuter) domain includes all remaining nouns: animals, objects, abstract concepts, and natural phenomena.

This system is commonly referred to as a gender agreement system, since gender forms the basis of this noun categorization—though not exclusively. Tsugni distinguishes three singular gender classes, marked by the consonants *-w-* (masculine), *-r-* (feminine), and *-b-* (neuter). The masculine and feminine classes are restricted to human animates, while the neuter class covers non-human nouns, including inanimates, animals, and abstract nouns.

In the plural, masculine and feminine merge into a single human plural class, marked by *-b-* in the third person and *-d-* in the first and second persons, while neuter forms a non-human plural marked by *-d-*. Table 2 summarizes this system.

Table 2. Gender system in Tsugni

	singular	plural
masculine	<i>-w-</i>	<i>-d-</i> (1st/2nd) / <i>-b-</i> (3rd)
feminine	<i>-r-</i>	
neuter	<i>-b-</i>	<i>-d-</i>

Gender marking (abbreviated as CM ‘class marker’) occurs in several morphological positions: prefixally on most verbal roots (e.g. CM-*erk* ‘eat’), on certain adjectives (e.g. CM-*uqna* ‘old’) and on their manner-adverbial forms (e.g. CM-*uqnale* ‘in an old fashion’, see discussion in section 3.4); suffixally in locative paradigms, where a class marker is added to a locative lative form to derive an essive form (e.g. *dubur-le* ‘onto the mountain’ → *dubur-le-CM* ‘on the mountain’); and occasionally infixally, as in copular forms *ca-CM-i* ‘to be’.

Two mechanisms can be distinguished:

1. **Lexical agreement marking**, where gender is encoded as part of the lexical stem.
2. **Paradigmatic agreement**, where gender marking appears as part of inflectional or derivational morphology.

In the former case, agreement is inherent to the lexical item, whereas in the latter it is triggered by the syntactic environment. This distinction becomes particularly relevant in the analysis of adjectival and adverbial forms.

3. Adverbs in East Caucasian: Structural Overview

This section outlines the structure of the adverbial domain in EC languages and introduces the main diagnostics employed in this paper to distinguish adjectival and adverbial representations, as well as to identify zones of category overlap. In the descriptive traditions of EC linguistics, adverbs are generally treated as a heterogeneous and weakly delimited category. While grammars recognize them as a distinct part of speech, they consistently emphasize that underived, non-analysable adverbs are relatively few, and that the adverbial domain is largely secondary and internally heterogeneous, with most forms arising through derivation, fossilization or grammaticalization. By way of illustration, the following subsection presents the adverbial class in Tsugni, which in many respects exemplifies a pattern that is typical of the majority of languages in the family.

3.1. Primary and derived adverbs

In Tsugni, genuinely underived adverbs constitute a small set of lexemes, e.g., *s:a* ‘yesterday’, *kat* ‘down’, *c’illi* ‘after, later’, *alaw* ‘around’, *hat’i* ‘again’. A limited number of morphologically opaque forms containing class markers is also attested, e.g., *CM-uqe* ‘for a long time’, *CM-it:el* ‘hither’.

A small group of semantically specialized primary adverbs (of purpose) further refers to culturally salient activities or locations, e.g., *s:ukni* ‘in order to ask in marriage’, *šat:ir* ‘for a walk’, *duče* ‘in order to graze’, *x:adi* ‘in order to marry (a woman)’, *t’aš:a* ‘in order to work in the field’. These items are synchronically unanalysable and do not participate in productive derivational patterns.

The overwhelming majority of adverbs, however, are derived from other lexical categories (adjectives, nouns, demonstratives), from fossilized case forms, or from grammaticalized constructions. This derivational profile is crucial for understanding the porous nature of category boundaries in EC, and motivates a basic semantic division between locative and non-locative adverbs.

3.2. Locative adverbs

Semantically, locative adverbs constitute the largest and most structurally elaborate subclass of the adverbial domain. Many are derived from pronominal deictic roots; Tsugni, for instance, possesses a particularly rich deictic system in which five basic demonstratives give rise to numerous adverbial forms. From the demonstrative *il* ‘that’, the addition of specific formatives yields forms such as *il-t:u* ‘over there’, *il-u* ‘in there’, *il-e* ‘up there’, *il-ra* ‘behind there’ and *il-ra-rka* ‘from behind there’ and so on.

In addition, many locative adverbs originate in nominal case forms, frequently grammaticalized from body-part nouns to express spatial relations, e.g. Tsugni *CM-ark*: ‘stomach’ → *CM-urk:e* ‘inside’, *š:ali* ‘flank’ → *š:alle* ‘beside’, *CM-aʕ* ‘face’ → *CM-aʕle* ‘opposite’, and *maʕq* ‘root’ → *maʕq’le* ‘near’.

A striking feature of EC languages is the functional overlap between locative adverbs and postpositions. In Tsugni, *CM-urk:e* ‘inside’ functions both as an independent adverb and as a relational element in constructions such as *qal-la CM-urk:e* ‘inside the house’, where *qal-la* is the genitive form of *qali* ‘house’, the typical regime case for most postpositions.

Moreover, locative adverbs often share identical inflectional paradigms with locative noun forms, with spatial meanings expressed through the same case markers and class-agreement morphology. This situation is typologically noteworthy, given that adverbs are traditionally characterized as uninflected; in Tsugni, however, locative adverbs and locative nouns display parallel lative, essive, ablative, and allative forms. Table 3 illustrates these parallel paradigms for the noun *dubur* ‘hill’ and the adverbs *CM-urk:e* ‘inside’ and *ile* ‘up there’ in Tsugni.

Table 3. Locative paradigms of nouns *dubur* ‘hill’ and adverbs *CM-urk:e* ‘inside’ and *ile* ‘up there’ in Tsugni

		lative	essive	ablative	allative
noun	<i>dubur</i> ‘hill’	<i>duburle</i> ‘onto the hill’	<i>duburle-CM</i> ‘on hill’	<i>duburle-rka</i> ‘from hill’	<i>duburle-CM-a-de</i> ‘towards hill’
	<i>CM-urk:e</i> ‘in(side)’	<i>CM-urke</i> ‘into’	<i>CM-urk:e-CM</i> ‘in(side)’	<i>CM-urk:e-rka</i> ‘from inside’	<i>CM-urk:e-CM-a-de</i> ‘towards inside’
adverbs	<i>ile</i> ‘up there’	<i>ile</i> ‘up to there’	<i>ile-CM</i> ‘up there’	<i>ile-rka</i> ‘from up there’	<i>ile-CM-a-de</i> ‘towards up there’

3.3. Non-locative adverbs

Among non-locative adverbs, two main subclasses can be distinguished: temporal adverbs and manner adverbs. Temporal adverbs are typically fossilized nominal case forms; in Tsugni, many appear in the instrumental form with the suffix *-li*, e.g., *duc:e-li* ‘at night’ (< *duc:e* ‘night’), *gani-li* ‘in winter’ (< *gani* ‘winter’).

Manner adverbs are productively derived from adjectival stems denoting properties or states. These forms raise a central theoretical question: do they constitute an independent lexical class, or are they adjectival stems in adverbial function? This issue is well known in Romance linguistics (see Hummel 2017) and lies at the core of the present study; in EC, adjectival stems may display morphologically distinct adverbial representations while remaining tightly integrated into the adjectival paradigm. Crucially, such adverbial forms may also be used in contexts where no manner of action is involved, an issue examined in detail in section 4.

3.4 Adverbial agreement

Adverbs have traditionally been characterized as an invariable word class, with the absence of agreement often treated as a defining property. This reflects a broader typological generalization according to which adverbs—unlike adjectives and nouns—do not participate in inflectional paradigms. However, a growing body of typological and language-specific research has documented cases in which adverbs show formal agreement with another clause element.

Agreeing adverbs are reported across diverse families, including Romance (especially Italo- and Ibero-Romance varieties; Ledgeway 2011, 2017; Hummel 2014, 2017; Hummel &

Valera 2017; Fábregas & Pérez-Jiménez 2008), Indo-Aryan (Hook & Joshi 1991; Butt et al. 2016) and Uralic (notably Tundra Nenets and Forest Enets; Nikolaeva 2014; Khanina & Shluinsky 2023). Within the EC family, agreement in gender (noun class) on adverbs is particularly robust and structurally integrated, typically controlled by the absolutive argument of the clause (Chumakina & Bond 2016; Chumakina & Lyutikova 2023; Sumbatova 2023; Kaye 2024).

In Tsugni, agreeing adverbs fall into two major classes: (i) locative adverbs and (ii) manner adverbs derived from adjectives, alongside a small set of underived adverbs such as *CM-aqe* ‘for a long time’ and *CM-it:el* ‘hither’. All locative adverbs exhibit paradigmatic agreement in their essive and allative forms, participating in the same system as nouns: spatial meanings are expressed by attaching class markers to a lative base. For instance, the locative adverb *ħaʃjs-e* ‘here above’, which has inherent lative meaning and typically combines with motion verbs, adds a gender-agreeing suffix in essive use with stative predicates, as illustrated in (2).

- (2) a. *ruc:i* *ħaʃjs-e-r* *š:i-c:e-r* *r-aqe* *r-ug-ib*.
 sister(NOM) here.SUPER-F village-IN-F F-for.long F-stay.PFV-PST(3)
 ‘My sister lived here above, in the village, for a long time.’
- b. *uc:i* *ħaʃjs-e-w* *š:i-c:e-w* *w-aqe* *w-ug-ib*.
 brother(NOM) here.SUPER-M village-IN-M M-for.long M-stay.PFV-PST(3)
 ‘My brother lived here above, in the village, for a long time.’

When the absolutive (nominative) subject changes from feminine to masculine, agreement on the locative essive adverb *ħaʃjs-e-CM* ‘here above’, the temporal adverb *CM-aqe* ‘for a long time’, the locative essive nominal complement *š:i-c:e-CM* ‘in the village’ and the verb shift accordingly. Virtually all independent lexical items in the clause thus function as agreement targets, reflecting the gender/class value of the absolutive argument; for further discussion of locative adverb agreement in Dargwa, see Sumbatova (2023), which focuses on essive adverbials in the neighbouring Tanti variety.

Agreement is also found in manner adverbs productively derived from adjectives. Some adjectival stems contain an inherent prefixal agreement slot as part of their lexical structure; this agreement is retained and continues to be controlled by the absolutive argument, when the stem is used adverbially.

- (3) a. *rurs:i* *b-arx-ce* *x:une-r.ka* *r-arx-le* *r-ač'-ib*.
 girl(NOM) N-straight-ATR road.LOC-ABL.DOWN F-straight-ADV F-come.PFV-PST(3)
 ‘The girl came directly along the straight road.’
- b. *durhaʃ* *b-arx-ce* *x:une-r.ka* *w-arx-le* *w-ač'-ib*.
 boy(NOM) N-straight-ATR road.LOC-ABL.DOWN M-straight-ADV M-come.PFV-(3)
 ‘The boy came directly along the straight road.’

In these examples, the adjectival stem *CM-arx* ‘straight’ functions both attributively (*b-arx-ce*, agreeing with the neuter noun *x:une* ‘road’) and adverbially (*r-arx-le* and *w-arx-le*, agreeing with the respective feminine and masculine absolutive arguments). Agreement morphology thus remains obligatory in both adjectival and adverbial realizations, but the controller shifts according to syntactic function and general agreement rules: within the NP, the head noun

serves as controller for all gender-agreeing dependents; outside the NP at the clausal level, targets capable of gender agreement typically align with the unmarked nominative (absolutive) argument, regardless of its semantic role.

4 Manner (adjectival) adverbs

4.1 Overview of adjectival classes in EC

Before turning to the analysis of adjectival manner adverbs, it is necessary to provide a brief overview of the status of adjectives in EC languages.

Across the family, there is a well-attested class of lexemes denoting qualities and properties, traditionally analysed as adjectives. In some languages, such as Tsakhur, these lexemes are grouped into a broader class of “predicates” that covers property-denoting and other non-verbal stems with rich inflectional paradigms. This class includes both primary (underived) stems and secondary stems derived from other parts of speech, as well as borrowed forms.

In EC languages lexemes belonging to the adjectival class are not confined to a single syntactic position. In addition to their canonical attributive use as nominal modifiers and modification of verbal predicates, (adverbial) adjectival stems may be verbalized via light-verb constructions, where the adjective functions as a so-called coverb (bare stem, no dedicated morphology) contributing the lexical meaning, while a light verb (typically ‘be’ or ‘do’) supplies verbal morphology. For instance, in Tsugni, the bare adjectival stem *aq* ‘high’ combines with the verb CM-*iχ* ‘be’ to derive the intransitive verb *aq* CM-*iχ* ‘get up’, while its combination with CM-*arq* ‘do’ yields the transitive verb *aq* CM-*arq* ‘raise’.

In their prototypical attributive use, adjectives precede the modified noun. As a general tendency, adjectives do not agree with the head noun in gender, number or case, although both language-specific and lexeme-specific exceptions are attested. In some languages, certain adjectives exhibit agreement in gender or class with the modified noun, as in Tsugni, where a subset of adjectival stems contains a dedicated prefixal class-agreement slot :

- | | | | | |
|-----|----|-----------------|-----------------------------|-----------------|
| (4) | a. | <i>w-uqnace</i> | <i>murgul</i> | ‘old man’ |
| | b. | <i>r-uqnace</i> | <i>xunul</i> | ‘old woman’ |
| | c. | <i>b-uqnace</i> | <i>qali/q^{wa}l</i> | ‘old house/cow’ |

Some EC languages employ explicit attributivizing morphology. In Avar and Kubachi (another Dargic language), for example, attributive modifiers are formed by means of a dedicated attributive suffix that systematically encodes agreement with the head noun.

Avar (Charachidze 1971: 87).

- | | | | | |
|-----|----|-------------------|------------|---------------|
| (5) | a. | <i>hit’in-a-w</i> | <i>was</i> | ‘little boy’ |
| | b. | <i>hit’in-a-j</i> | <i>yas</i> | ‘little girl’ |

In addition to primary adjectives, EC languages possess several productive mechanisms of attributivization. Importantly, these attributivizing mechanisms typically rely on the same morphological resources employed with primary adjectival stems (e.g., the suffix *-ce* in

Tsugni). The most widespread strategy is the use of verbal morphology, giving rise to deverbal adjectives traditionally analyzed as participles (for instance in Tsugni: CM-*a'č* 'break' → CM-*a'čun* 'broke (3rd)' → CM-*a'čun-ce* 'broken'). Nominal case forms may also function as attributive modifiers (in Tsugni: *š:i* 'village' → *š:i-c:e-rka* 'from the village' (village-IN-ABL) → *š:ic:erka-ce nus:e* 'the cheese **which is from the village**' (village-IN-ABL-ATR cheese)).

In many languages of the family, the adjectival function is explicitly marked by specialized attributive morphology. In others, bare property-denoting stems occur without any overt attributivizing marking. Thus, EC languages exhibit substantial variation in the degree of morphological differentiation between attributive and non-attributive uses of property-denoting lexemes, a variation that directly interacts with the patterns of adjectival adverb formation discussed in the following sections.

4.3 Manner (adjectival) adverbs in EC

EC languages display a flexible parts-of-speech system with productive shifts, including adverbialization (Sumbatova 2012: 15). While virtually all adjectives can be used adverbially - modifying the *manner* of the event expressed by the verb - the formal encoding of this adverbial use varies considerably across languages and gives rise to distinct typological patterns. For the present study, data are considered from at least one language from each branch of the family.

4.3.1 Type I: Unmarked transposition

In some EC languages, the same bare form of the adjective is used in both attributive and adverbial functions, lacking specialized adverbial morphology or dedicated attributive marking; their distinction relies solely on syntactic position.

This pattern is documented in the Nakh languages - Chechen (Nichols 1994: 51) and Ingush (Nichols 2011: 217):

Ingush (Nakh; Nichols 2011: 217)

- (6) a. *dika sag*
 good person
 'good person'
- b. *dika ealar*
 well say.WP
 '(s/he) said (it) well'

A similar pattern is found in the isolating language Khinalug. As reported by Dešeriev (1959: 142), adjectival and adverbial forms fully coincide and are distinguished only syntactically.

Khinalug (Dešeriev 1959: 142)

- (7) a. *qajardä riši*
 beautiful girl
 'beautiful girl'

1 b. *hini qajardä šic'rät*
 2 he beautiful write.PRS
 3 ‘He writes beautifully.’

4 The same type is also attested in Kryz (Lezgetic branch), where adjectives can function
 5 adverbially in their basic form (Authier 2009: 79).

6 **Kryz** (Lezgetic; Authier 2009: 79, 220)

7 (8) a. *nibat sila duxvar-ux su-d-q'u-c*
 8 turn small son-APUD PV-N-reach-AOR.N
 9 ‘It was the small/youngest son’s turn.’

10 b. *sila yi-p-cib xayla yi-p-cib*
 11 small PV-HPL.go-AOR.HPL much PV-HPL.go-AOR.HPL
 12 ‘They walked a little, they walked a lot ...’

13 Typologically, such systems align with patterns where adjectival stems freely appear in
 14 adverbial function without overt marking, as in many Turkic languages (e.g.
 15 Turkish *çabuk* ‘quick / quickly’; van Schaaik 2020: 181) and in unmarked adjectival adverbs
 16 in Romance and English (Hummel 2017; Hummel 2019).

17 **4.3.2 Type II: Marked transposition**

18 Most EC languages exhibit systems in which adjectival stems have a morphologically distinct
 19 adverbial representation in transposed manner function. Within this broad type, some
 20 languages mark both attributive and adverbial functions, whereas others mark only the
 21 adverbial function. This pattern characterizes most Dargic varieties, as well as Lak and
 22 Tsakhur.

23 In Tsugni, adjectives take the attributive suffix *-ce*, while adverbial use is expressed by *-le*.

24 **Tsugni Dargwa**

25 (9) a. *q:alaba-ce mašin*
 26 quick-ATR car
 27 ‘a quick car’

28 b. *durħa^ε q:alaba-le w-ač'-ib*
 29 boy quick-ADV M-come.PFV-PST(3)
 30 ‘The boy came quickly.’

31 In Lak, manner adverbs are regularly derived from property-denoting stems (often described
 32 as “short adjectives”). In attributive function, these stems typically take the attributive
 33 suffix *-s:a:*, whereas in adverbial function they take *-nu/-na*, analysed as a manner-adverb
 34 marker.

35 **Lak** (Kazenin 2013: 17 ; Džidalaev 1993 : 904)

- 1 (10) a. *marc'-s:a* *š:in*
 2 clean-ATR water
 3 'a clean water'
- 4 b. *marc'-nu* *čič-in*
 5 clean-ADV write-INF
 6 'to write cleanly'

7 In Tsakhur, lexemes denoting properties are analysed as members of a broader class of
 8 "predicates" with a rich morphological paradigm. In attributive function they take the
 9 attributivizer *-na* / *-n* / *-m*, while in adverbial function they take *-ga* / *-ba* / *-da* (Sosenskaja
 10 1999).

11 **Tsakhur** (Sosenskaja 1999 : 99, 570)

- 12 (11) a. *jug-na* *balkan*
 13 good-ATR.H/A horse(A)
 14 'a good horse'
- 15 b. *fatimat-e:* *qa'daqq* *wodon* *jug-da.*
 16 PN-ERG N.study.PFV be.N good-ADV.N
 17 'Fatima studies well.'

18 In Avar, there is a class of lexemes which grammatical descriptions alternately classify as
 19 adverbs or adjectives. In attributive function, these lexemes take special adjectival suffixes -
 20 *av/-ev* for masculine, *-aj/-ej* for feminine, *-ab/-eb* for neuter, and *-al/-el* in the plural (without
 21 gender distinction). In these forms, the lexemes modify a noun and express a qualitative
 22 property of the referent. In a substantial portion of their uses, however, the same lexemes
 23 function in an adverbial position, modifying the verb; in this function they are marked by the
 24 particle *-go* (Bokarev 1949: 87; Charachidzé 1971: 88): *hek-a*-CM 'quick (adj.)' → *hek-*
 25 *go* 'quickly'.

26 **Avar** (Bokarev: 106, Alekseev : 308)

- 27 (12) a. *bercin-a-l* *jas-al*
 28 good-ATR-PL girl-PL
 29 'beautiful girls'
- 30 b. *bercin-go* *šodule-j* *j-igo* *mun*
 31 beautiful-ADV cry.PTCP-F F-COP 2SG.NOM
 32 'You are crying beautifully.'

33 A similar situation is attested in Karata, where most adverbs share their stems with adjectives.
 34 The stem with a suffixal class marker *-o*-CM is used as an adjective, while the same stem with
 35 the vowel *-a* functions as an adverb (Magomedbekova 1971: 160): *tab-o*-CM 'strong (adj.)'
 36 → *tab-a* 'strongly'

37 The Avar and Karata patterns are parallel to systems in which adjectives morphologically agree
 38 with nouns and adverbs derived from them replace agreement morphology by an invariable
 39 adverbial marker. Agreement neutralization is expected here, since the adverb does not modify

1 a noun and can combine with categories different from nouns, such as verbs or whole clauses,
2 which do not bear gender or number features (Fabregas 2014: 292).

3 **Latin** (Fabregas 2014: 292)

4 (13) *pulcher* → *pulchr-e*
5 beautiful.MASC beautiful-ADV
6 ‘beautiful’ ‘beautifully’

7 There are also languages in which attributive use is morphologically unmarked, while adverbial
8 use is encoded by a dedicated suffix.

9 In Standard Lezgian, manner adverbs are derived from adjectives by means of the suffixes -
10 *dakaz* and *-diz* / *-z*, alongside a few less productive formatives (Haspelmath 1993: 111, 113).

11 **Standard Lezgian** (Haspelmath 1993: 101, 113)

12 (14) a. *k’ewi* *wan*
13 strong voice
14 ‘a strong voice’
15 b. *Mirzebeg-a* *k’ewi-z* *haraj-na...*
16 Mirzebeg-ERG strong-ADV shout-AOR
17 ‘Mirzebeg shouted loudly...’

18 Similarly, in Tabasaran, the suffix *-di* forms manner adverbs from almost all adjectives,
19 including loans (Babaliyeva 2014: 75):

20 **Tabasaran** (Lezgitic; Babaliyeva 2014: 74, 305)

21 (15) a. *yavaš* *ses*
22 slow voice
23 ‘(s)low voice’
24 b. *yavaš-di* *dumu* *ulixhna* *ğ-uru*
25 slow-ADV 3SG forward come-HAB
26 ‘He advanced slowly.’

27 An interesting exception within the Nakh branch is the minority language Bats, where
28 adjectives are unmarked in attributive use but take special morphology in adverbial function:
29 the present converb suffix *-š* : *c’ani* ‘clean’ → *c’ani-š* ‘cleanly’ (Dešeriev 1963: 485),

30 **Bats** (Wichers-Schreur 2025: 163, 248)

31 (16) a. *ğazeⁿ* *st’ak’*
32 good man
33 ‘a good man...’

1 b. o *ğaz-iş* moq b-Ø-o.
2 DIST good-ADV song B.SG-do-NPST
3 ‘S/he sings well.’

4 Typologically, Bats, Lezgian and Tabasaran represent systems where adverbial function is
5 systematically marked by dedicated morphology reminiscent of Romance *-mente* and English
6 *-ly*.

7 **5 Predicative function in East Caucasian: overlapping boundaries between adjectives and** 8 **manner adverbs**

9 In many well-described Indo-European languages, a relatively clear division is maintained
10 between adjectives and morphologically derived manner adverbs with respect to their
11 distribution in predicative constructions. Adjectives are used both attributively (as nominal
12 modifiers) and predicatively (as predicates in copular clauses), whereas manner adverbs
13 primarily modify events and clauses and are generally excluded from copular predication
14 (Duplâtre & Duffley 2026). In such systems, predicative position is typically occupied by
15 adjectival forms, and adverbial morphology largely blocks access to the predicative domain.

16 This contrast is illustrated in Table 4 with Russian, French, and English. (The ungrammatical
17 examples are marked with an asterisk.)

18 Table 4. Adjective vs. Adverb in Russian, French, and English

Function		Russian	French	English
Adjective	attributive	<i>bystryj otvet</i>	<i>une réponse rapide</i>	<i>a quick answer</i>
	predicative	<i>Otvet bystryj.</i>	<i>La réponse est rapide.</i>	<i>The answer is quick.</i>
Adverb	manner	<i>On otvetil bystro.</i>	<i>Il a répondu rapidement.</i>	<i>He answered quickly.</i>
	predicative	<i>*Otvet bystro.</i>	<i>*La réponse est rapidement.</i>	<i>*The answer is quickly.</i>

19 In EC languages - particularly in those where adjectival and adverbial forms are formally
20 distinct - a typologically remarkable pattern emerges. Forms traditionally classified as *manner*
21 *adverbs* occur freely in predicative position (i.e., as non-verbal predicates in copular clauses).
22 Crucially, in such contexts they denote participant states (a kind of *manner of being*),
23 attributing a quality to the subject rather than encoding pure manner.

24 For instance, in Tsugni, predicative meaning can be expressed either by the attributive form
25 (*raʕzi ce*, as in example 17a) or by the adverbial form (*raʕzi le*, as in example 17b). The latter
26 form is also used in what is traditionally described as a manner modifier, indicating the way in
27 which an action is performed or, more precisely, describing the state of a participant during the
28 event (as in example 17c), largely due to the inherent semantics of the adjective.

29 **Tsugni Dargwa**

30 (17) a. *gule* *raʕzi-ce* *cabi*.
31 child.PL happy-ATR COP:HPL(3)
32 ‘The children are happy.’ (in general)

- 1 b. *gule* *raʕzi-le* *cabi*.
2 child.PL happy-ADV COP:HPL(3)
3 ‘The children are happy.’ (now)
- 4 c. *gule* *raʕzi-le* *b-ulq-un*.
5 child.PL happy-ADV HPL-dance.PFV-PST(3)
6 ‘The children danced happily.’

7 Importantly, adverbial forms do not replace adjectival forms in EC predication; rather, the two
8 representations share the predicative domain. In languages of this type, both the adjectival and
9 the adverbial form can serve as a copular predicate, and the alternation is frequently associated
10 with subtle but systematic interpretive differences. Thus, in EC languages adverbial
11 morphology does not block predication but can function as a legitimate marker of non-verbal
12 predication alongside adjectival morphology.

13 This overlap has been reported for a wide range of EC languages that have two distinct forms
14 for an adjective and its adverbial counterpart. By contrast, languages in which adjectival and
15 adverbial uses are formally identical (e.g. Chechen, Ingush, Khinalug) do not provide an
16 equivalent contrast, since no formal boundary exists between the two representations in the
17 first place.

18 In the languages under consideration, a common generalization is that the attributive form used
19 predicatively tends to encode a stable or characteristic property of the referent, while the
20 adverbial form tends to encode a situational, temporary, or context-dependent state. This split
21 can be interpreted in terms of the well-known semantic distinction between individual-level
22 predicates (ILPs) and stage-level predicates (SLPs): ILPs denote relatively permanent
23 properties, whereas SLPs denote temporary states holding at particular stages. Alternations
24 between adjectival and adverbial forms in EC copular predication can therefore be analysed as
25 a morphosyntactic reflex of the ILP/SLP contrast.

26 The diagnostics and broader evidence are discussed in the following sections.

27 5.1 Individual-level and stage-level predicates: theoretical background

28 The distinction between individual-level predicates (ILPs) and stage-level predicates (SLPs)
29 was introduced in Carlson (1977) and subsequently developed in formal semantic research,
30 including Kratzer’s (1995) analysis of stativity and aspect. ILPs are typically understood as
31 denoting relatively stable or characteristic properties of individuals (e.g., being tall or
32 intelligent), whereas SLPs denote temporally bounded, situation-dependent states (e.g., being
33 tired or ill).

34 A central analytical consequence of this distinction is that SLPs are interpreted as anchored to
35 a particular spatiotemporal stage, while ILPs lack such anchoring. This semantic contrast
36 correlates cross-linguistically with a range of morphosyntactic diagnostics, including
37 compatibility with temporal adverbials, existential constructions, and generic vs. episodic
38 interpretations.

39 A frequently cited case of partial grammaticalization of the ILP/SLP contrast is Spanish copular
40 predication. The copulas *ser* and *estar* are commonly associated with ILP-like and SLP-like
41 readings respectively (Lema 1995), as illustrated in the following examples:

1 **Spanish**

2 (18) a. *Juan es enfermo.*
3 ‘Juan is chronically ill.’

4 b. *Juan está enfermo.*
5 ‘Juan is ill (now).’

6 At the same time, the alternation has also been analysed in terms of aspectual and discourse-
7 semantic factors rather than a purely ILP/SLP opposition (Roby 2009; Camacho 2010). The
8 Spanish system therefore illustrates the interaction between predication type and broader
9 aspectual structure.

10 Comparable contrasts are found in other languages. Russian distinguishes between short and
11 long adjectival forms in predicative position, often correlating with temporary vs.
12 characterizing interpretations (Babby 1973; Bulygina 1982):

13 **Russian**

14 (19) a. *On zol.*
15 ‘He is angry (now).’

16 b. *On zloj.*
17 ‘He is an angry person.’

18 Turkish encodes a related opposition through the distribution of overt copular morphology.
19 Inherent properties are typically expressed with a zero copula, whereas overt *ol-* is restricted to
20 temporary or change-of-state interpretations (Karakoç 2014; Ragagnin 2025).

21 **Turkish**

22 (20) *José İspanyol*
23 José Spanish-Ø
24 ‘José is Spanish.’

25 By contrast, the use of the overt copular verb *ol-* with habitual or present morphology is
26 infelicitous in such contexts:

27 (21) * *José İspanyol* *ol-ur.*
28 José Spanish COP-HAB
29 Intended: ‘José is Spanish.’

30 The ungrammaticality of (20) suggests that *ol-ur* cannot be used when the predicate denotes a
31 stable, non-temporal property such as nationality or inherent classification. Instead, overt *ol-* is
32 restricted to predicates expressing temporary, situational, or change-of-state meanings, for
33 example:

34 (22) a. *José hasta* *ol-du.*
35 José sick COP-PST
36 ‘José became sick / José is sick (temporarily).’

- 1 b. *José hasta ol-ur*
 2 José sick COP-HAB
 3 ‘It happens to José to fall ill.’²
 4

5 Thus, Turkish can be seen as encoding a stage-level vs. individual-level contrast not through
 6 adverbial morphology, but through the presence vs. absence (and distribution) of overt copular
 7 marking.

8 Cross-linguistically, the ILP/SLP distinction has been argued to correlate with a range of
 9 syntactic and morphological diagnostics, including:

- 10 • compatibility with temporal adverbials (e.g. *now*, *at the moment*);
- 11 • possibility of existential constructions;
- 12 • generic vs. episodic readings;
- 13 • restrictions on quantification and modification.

14 Cross-linguistically, however, the ILP/SLP distinction is not overtly grammaticalized and
 15 remains largely implicit or context-dependent. For instance, in English the contrast
 16 between *John is sick* (SLP-like) and *John is intelligent* (ILP-like) is encoded lexically rather
 17 than by dedicated morphology.

18 Against this background, the EC data discussed in section 5.2 are typologically significant. In
 19 these languages, morphologically adverbialized forms of adjectives may appear in canonical
 20 predicative position and systematically correlate with temporary or situation-bound readings.
 21 The ILP/SLP distinction is thus reflected not in copular alternation or adjectival inflection, but
 22 in the distribution of adjectival vs. adverbial morphology. This configuration directly bears on
 23 the boundaries between adjective and adverb.

25 5.2 Manner adverbs as stage-level predicates in East Caucasian

26 No comprehensive study has examined the morphosyntactic encoding of the ILP/SLP
 27 distinction across the East Caucasian family. Nevertheless, in those languages where adjectival
 28 stems have morphologically distinct adverbial forms, a recurrent and well-attested pattern
 29 emerges: the adverbial form is used not only as a manner modifier, but also as a predicate in
 30 copular constructions.

31 Crucially, adverbial morphology does not block access to predication. Instead, adjectival and
 32 adverbial forms coexist in predicative position and correlate with systematic interpretive
 33 contrasts. The adjectival (attributive) form tends to encode stable or characterizing properties
 34 of the referent (ILP-like readings), whereas the adverbial form preferentially encodes
 35 temporary, situational, or context-dependent states (SLP-like readings).

36 The alternation thus constitutes a morphosyntactic reflex of the ILP/SLP distinction. Unlike
 37 Spanish or Russian, where the contrast is expressed through copular choice or adjectival

² Murad Suleymanov, p.c.

1 inflection, EC languages encode it through the distribution of adverbial morphology. This
 2 pattern directly challenges the assumption that adverbial morphology is confined to event
 3 modification and instead suggests that it participates in the structuring of non-verbal
 4 predication.

5 5.2.1 Dargic: Sanzhi and Itsari

6 This phenomenon is particularly well and widely observed in Dargic languages, including
 7 Sanzhi and Itsari Dargwa, where adverbialized forms are productively used as non-verbal
 8 predicates alongside attributive forms.

9 **Sanzhi Dargwa** (Forker 2020: 425)

- 10 (23) a. *iž dus ʔaʰh-ce cabi.*
 11 this year good-ATR COP:N
 12 ‘This year is good.’ (property of the year)
- 13 b. *iž dus ʔaʰh-le cabi.*
 14 this year good-ADV COP:N
 15 ‘This year is good.’ (property of the situation)

16 **Itsari Dargwa** (Sumbatova & Mutalov 2003 : 11, 43)

- 17 (24) a. *du suqur-ci=da.*
 18 1SG blind-ATR=1COP
 19 ‘I am blind.’
- 20 b. *haldur-ri caw.*
 21 ready-ADV COP:M
 22 ‘He is ready.’

23 5.2.2 Lak

24 In Lak, manner adverbs derived with *-nu* likewise occur in copular predication. The adverbial
 25 form is associated with situational (stage-level) readings, whereas the attributive form yields
 26 an inherent/characterizing (individual-level) interpretation/ reading.

27 **Lak** (Kazenin 2013: 114, 123):

- 28 (25) a. *hawa ʔeli-nu b-ija.*
 29 weather warm-ADV N-COP.PST
 30 ‘The air was warm.’
- 31 b. *taχ ut:a-s:a b-aq:a-nu-gu, laqi-s:a b-u-r*
 32 sofa wide-ATR N-COP.NEG-CNV-ADD long-ATR N-COP.PRS-3
 33 ‘The sofa is not wide, but it is long.’

5.2.3 Lezxic: Lezgian, Tabasaran, Tsakhur

A similar pattern is observed across several Lezxic languages, including Standard Lezgian, Tabasaran, and Tsakhur, where adverbial morphology is compatible with copular predication and tends to correlate with temporary, context-dependent interpretations.

Tabasaran (Babaliyeva 2014: 79)

(26) *mu yiğ.an Leyla, šad-di, ačuqh-di va zirek-di vu-yi.*
 this day.GEN PN glad-ADV open-ADV and prompt-ADV COP-PST
 ‘This day, Leyla was happy, open and prompt.’

(27) *uzu deʔ-na-yi yišv rahat-di vu.*
 1SG sit-PRF-PRT place comfortable-ADV COP
 ‘The place where I am sitting is comfortable.’

Tsakhur (Sosenskaja 1999: 100)

(28) a. *rasul c’ir-ra wo-r.*
 Rasul sick-ADV.H COP-H
 ‘Rasul is sick (now).’

b. *rasul c’ir-na wo-r.*
 Rasul sick-ATR.H/A COP-H
 Rasul is (a) sick (person).’

Standard Lezgian (Haspelmath 1993: 323)

(29) *Mizafer k’uban-diz ama.*
 Mizafer energetic-ADV be.still
 ‘Mizafer is still energetic.’

In all three languages, adverbial morphology does not prevent predicative use and systematically correlates with temporary, context-dependent interpretations.

5.2.4 Avar

Finally, in Avar, adverbial representations of adjectives, marked by the particle *-go*, may also appear in copular constructions and encode situational properties of the subject.

Avar (Bokarev 1949: 88)

(30) a. *kinabgo žo heni-b b-ac:ad-go b-ercin-go b-ugo*
 every.H thing there-N N-clean-ADV N-beautiful-ADV N-COP
 ‘Everything there is clean and beautiful.’

b. *ʒači č’ahi-ja-l q’ari-ja-l r-ugo*
 COW.PL big-ATR-NPL fat-ATR-PL PL-COP
 ‘The cows are big and fat.’

Bokarev (1949) notes that in both sentences reference is made to permanent properties; however, in (30a) the stem plus *-go* highlights a property of the situation, whereas in (30b) the attributive form describes an inherent property of the referent itself.

Only in Bats do adverbial representations of adjectives appear to form a strictly separate morphological class; however, based on currently available evidence, no published examples demonstrate the use of these adverbial forms in predicative function. Bats therefore remains an open question for the present typology.

6. Conclusion

In standard grammatical descriptions, adjectives primarily modify nouns or attribute properties to nominal referents, whereas adverbs are typically defined in functional terms as modifiers of non-nominal categories, most commonly verbs, but also adjectives, other adverbs, and entire clauses (Hengeveld 2023; Hummel 2017). This traditional division, however, becomes particularly unstable in the domain of manner expressions, where qualitative properties of events are often encoded by forms that are transparently derived from or linked to adjectival stems. An additional complication is that the same forms may be semantically oriented toward the participant, describing the participant's state during the event. In such cases, the construction corresponds to what is commonly analysed as a depictive secondary predicate.

Based on data from at least one language in each branch of the EC family, this study has examined the of *manner adjectival adverbs*, focusing on their morphosyntactic behaviour and their role in predicative function. EC languages exhibit substantial variation in adverbial transposition: some allow unmarked use of adjectival stems in adverbial function, while others employ dedicated adverbial morphology. In all cases, however, adjectival stems remain the primary source of manner adverbs, supporting analyses that treat deadjectival adverbs as transpositional or inflectional realizations of a shared lexical base rather than as members of an independent lexical class.

The language appears to distinguish between an attributive form of adjectives and a separate non-attributive form, which is polyfunctional. The non-attributive form can be used both event-oriented, characterizing the way in which an event unfolds (e.g., *Claire left the room **angrily***), and participant-oriented, describing the state of a participant during the event (e.g., *Claire left the room **angry***), i.e., as a depictive secondary predicate (Schultze-Berndt 2016). Participant orientation and event orientation may co-occur or arise through a metonymic shift, whereby the manner of an event is interpreted as reflecting the state of the participant at the time of the action (e.g. *Claire **angrily** read the review*). In such cases, the adjective *angry* - even when realized in its adverbial form *angrily* depending on the verb - does not function as a pure manner adverb. Rather than exclusively specifying the manner of the action, it often describes the state of the subject at the moment of the event. For this reason, sentences such as *Claire **angrily** read the review* cannot always be adequately paraphrased as *Claire read the review in an **angry manner***; instead, they involve a participant-oriented interpretation, in which the adverbial form reflects the subject's emotional condition during the action (Geuder 2000). Such even in English, where *adverbs* are formally distinguished from *depictives* by the presence of the suffix *-ly*, these adverbial *-ly* form can have contextually depictive interpretation.

Since this form can express the temporary state of a participant in depictive constructions, it is also used in copular clauses to encode stage-level predicates (SLPs), i.e., predicates describing temporally bounded states (e.g., *Claire is **angry** now*), and in other stative predicates with

which manner adverbs in the strict sense are incompatible. By contrast, attributive forms tend to be associated with individual-level predicates (ILPs), denoting more permanent or inherent properties (e.g., *Claire is an **angry** person*).

From a cross-linguistic and typological perspective, a similar systematic blurring of the boundary between manner expression and predicative function, comparable to that found in East Caucasian languages, is observed in Cavineña, a Tacanan languages spoken in Bolivia. In Cavineña, a class of lexemes is distinguished under the label *predicative adjectives*. These lexemes typically occupy copula-complement positions in copular clauses and cannot head a noun phrase or directly modify the head of a noun phrase. Their primary function is therefore predicative, as illustrated in (31).

Cavineña, Tacanan (Guillaume 2008: 330)

(31) *ujeje-da ju-bawe ju-kware*
 sick-ADJ be-ALWS be-REM.PAST
 ‘(Before we believed in God) we were always sick.’

At the same time, the same forms may also occur in constructions traditionally interpreted as expressing manner modification of the verb as illustrated in (32) and/or secondary predication (depictive).

Cavineña, Tacanan (Guillaume 2008: 362)

(32) *Iba ujeje-da jara-kware amena*
 jaguar sick-ADJ lie-REM.PAST BM
 ‘The jaguar lay sick.’

However, in example (32), although the *adjective* is analyzed as functioning adverbially and modifying the verb (Guillaume 2008: 361), it remains unclear from a semantic perspective whether it truly encodes the pure manner of the event, or rather describes the state of a participant during the event, yielding a participant-oriented (depictive) interpretation, or possibly both.

From this perspective, the morphology traditionally analysed in EC languages as marking manner adverb(ial)s may in fact serve a different function: it converts ILPs, which cannot normally function as depictives, into SLPs, thereby allowing them to denote temporary or situational states. The association of adjectival (attributive) forms with individual-level readings (e.g., *generous, intelligent, selfish*) and adverbial forms with stage-level interpretations (e.g., *generously, intelligently, selfishly*) constitutes a typologically plausible semantic differentiation (Schultze-Berndt 2016).

From this perspective, forms traditionally classified in EC languages as *manner adverb(ial)s* can instead be analysed as *general SLP adjuncts*, i.e. adjuncts compatible with both verbs and copular predicates and allowing both participant-(state)-oriented and event-oriented interpretations. In contrast, items traditionally termed manner adverbs are typically assumed to be intrinsically incompatible with stative predicates (Duplâtre & Duffley 2026).

1 **Transcriptions, glosses and other abbreviations**

2 In the examples from East Caucasian languages, we use adapted IPA transcriptions that are
3 generally accepted in descriptive and typological work on this family. For glossing, we follow
4 the Leipzig Glossing Rules (LGR), with minor adaptations for language-specific categories in
5 East Caucasian.

6 When citing examples from other authors, we generally retain their original transcription and
7 glossing, except in a few cases where we slightly adapt them in order to make more transparent
8 the phenomena that are central to the present study.

9 **Abbreviations**

10 abl — ablative ; add — additive ; adv — adverb(ial) ; aor — aorist ; alws — always ; apud
11 — localization ‘at someone’s place/with someone’ ; atr — attributive ; bm — boundary
12 marker ; cm — class marker ; cop — copula ; dem — demonstrative ; dist — distal ; down
13 — downward (direction) ; erg — ergative ; ess — essive (orientation) ; f — feminine ; gen —
14 genitive ; in — localization ‘inside’ ; inf — infinitive ; inter — localization ‘in a substance;
15 between’ ; ipfv — imperfective ; lat — lative (orientation) ; loc — locative (general
16 localization) ; lv — light verb ; m — masculine ; n — non-human gender ; neg — negation ;
17 nom — nominative ; obl — oblique stem ; pfv — perfective ; pl — plural ; pret — preterite ;
18 prs — present ; pst — past ; ptcp — participle ; prox — proximal ; pv — preverb ; rem.past
19 — remote past ; sg — singular ; sub — localization ‘under’ ; super — localization ‘on’ ; wp
20 — witnessed past tense.

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